



UNIVERZITA
KOMENSKÉHO
V BRATISLAVE

Comenius University in Bratislava

Global Religious Trends and Diversity

A data analysis report on global religion, religiousness, and society

Authors

Vladyslav Sabodash

Pavel Talanov

Fedir Melnyk

Ivan Morozov

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Introduction

Religion is one of the most persistent social and cultural structures in the world. It is connected with identity, geography, demographic change, social norms, and political history. At the same time, religion is not distributed uniformly across countries: some countries are dominated by one religious group, while others are internally diverse or have a high share of people who report no religious affiliation.

The aim of this project is to describe global religious patterns using country-level data. The research follows the structure of the original notebook: first, the datasets are explored and cleaned; second, global religious structure is analyzed; third, a composite religiousness index is constructed; and finally, religiousness is compared with selected socioeconomic indicators.

The analysis is descriptive and exploratory. Therefore, the report distinguishes between direct observations from the data and possible interpretations. In particular, when religion is compared with GDP, income group, or fertility, the results should not be interpreted as causal evidence. They show patterns and hypotheses that may motivate further research.

Data sources and preprocessing overview

The project combines three main types of data. First, the table `number-of-people-by-religion.csv` from Our World in Data contains estimates of the number of people belonging to major religious groups by country and year [1]. Second, the table `how-important-religion-is-in-your-life.csv` from Our World in Data contains survey-based answers about how important religion is in people’s lives [2]. Third, World Bank DataBank was used as an auxiliary source for socioeconomic indicators such as population, GDP per capita, fertility rate, area, and income group classification [3]. The World Bank DataBank is a tool for exploring time-series development data, including tables, maps, and charts; the World Development Indicators collection is described by the World Bank as its primary collection of development indicators from officially recognized international sources [3].

Table 1: Datasets used in the project.

Dataset	Main role	Important variables
Number of people by religion	Main dataset for religious composition	Country/entity name, ISO code, year, and counts of Buddhists, Hindus, Muslims, Jews, Christians, people with no religion, and other religions.
How important religion is in your life	Survey dataset for personal religiousness	Country/entity, year, and response shares: very important, rather important, not very important, not at all important, do not know, and no answer.
World Bank table	Auxiliary socioeconomic dataset	Income group, population, GDP per capita, fertility rate, and area.

The most important preprocessing steps were the following. Values written as “< 10000” in the religion-count table were replaced by 10000 so that all religious-group columns could be converted to numeric values. This decision allows arithmetic operations, but it may slightly distort very small groups; therefore, results for tiny minorities should be interpreted cautiously. Aggregate rows such as **World** were separated from country-level rows when country maps or country comparisons were built. For country-level maps, only valid country codes were used and non-country aggregates were removed. For survey data, annotation columns with about 99% missing values were removed, and the response columns were renamed to shorter names. The survey responses were also converted into two weighted religiousness indices, described later in Section 3.1.

Table 2: Main columns in the religion-count dataset.

Column	Meaning
Entity	Country, region, or world-level entity.
Code	ISO-style country code or Our World in Data aggregate code.
Year	Observation year. In the main composition analysis, 2010 and 2020 are used.
Buddhists, Hindus, Muslims, Jews, Christians, No religion, Other religions	Estimated number of people in each religious category.

Table 3: Basic characteristics observed during preprocessing.

Item	Observed characteristic in the notebook
Religion-count table	214 unique entity names were loaded, including the world aggregate. The world-level rows were separated before country-level analysis. No missing values were found after loading.
World-level religion rows	The world aggregate contains two rows, one for 2010 and one for 2020.
Importance-of-religion table	400 rows and 117 countries were loaded. The years range from 1993 to 2022.
Importance response quality	The substantive response columns have low missingness, while annotation columns have about 99% missingness and were removed.
World Bank table	Missingness is relatively low for most socioeconomic indicators; the largest reported missingness is for GDP2000, at about 8.3%.

Conclusion. The data are suitable for descriptive international comparison, but they combine estimated religious composition, survey answers, and socioeconomic indicators from different sources. This means that exact numerical comparisons should be made carefully, especially when survey coverage is incomplete or when very small religion counts were approximated.

1 Exploratory Data Analysis

1.1 Number of people by religion

The first table is the core dataset of the project. It records estimated numbers of people belonging to seven broad religious categories. The initial data inspection showed that the religious columns were loaded as strings because some values were written as “< 10000”. After replacing these values and converting the columns to integers, the dataset could be used for shares, changes, dominant religions, and diversity measures.

The world-level rows provide an immediate overview of global religious composition. In 2010 the largest group was Christians, followed by Muslims, people with no religion, and Hindus. By 2020 Christians remained the largest group in absolute terms, but their global share decreased, while Muslims and people with no religion increased their shares.

Table 4: World-level counts by religious group, 2010 and 2020.

Religious group	2010	2020
Buddhists	342,750,000	324,190,000
Hindus	1,051,540,000	1,177,860,000
Muslims	1,675,800,000	2,022,590,000
Jews	13,910,000	14,780,000
Christians	2,147,230,000	2,268,860,000
No religion	1,635,250,000	1,905,360,000
Other religions	154,110,000	172,170,000

Conclusion. The religion-count table is the main basis for the global composition analysis. Its main advantage is global comparability, while its main limitation is that it uses broad categories and includes approximate values for very small groups.

1.2 Importance of religion survey table

The second table measures the importance of religion in people’s lives. Unlike the religion-count table, this is survey-based: it does not count religious affiliation directly, but records the share of respondents choosing categories such as “very important”, “rather important”, “not very important”, and “not at all important”.

A basic validation step checked whether the survey responses approximately sum to 100%. For example, in the notebook the total for selected Albania rows was essentially 100, which confirmed that the columns represent a complete distribution of answers for a country-year observation.

Table 5: Summary statistics for the importance-of-religion table after removing annotation columns.

Variable	Count	Mean	Std.	Min	Median	Max
Year	400	2008.86	9.55	1993	2010	2022
Very important	400	39.71	28.74	1.40	30.52	98.89
Rather important	400	24.62	11.04	0.91	25.45	56.80
Not very important	399	20.54	13.38	0.01	21.93	60.38
Not at all important	393	13.91	13.06	0.01	9.96	75.80
Do not know	395	1.07	2.22	0.00	0.33	24.25
No answer	400	0.46	1.27	0.00	0.08	17.28

The distribution of the number of survey waves per country is uneven. Some countries appear in only one wave, while others appear in up to six waves. This is important because trend analysis can only use countries that have comparable observations across time.

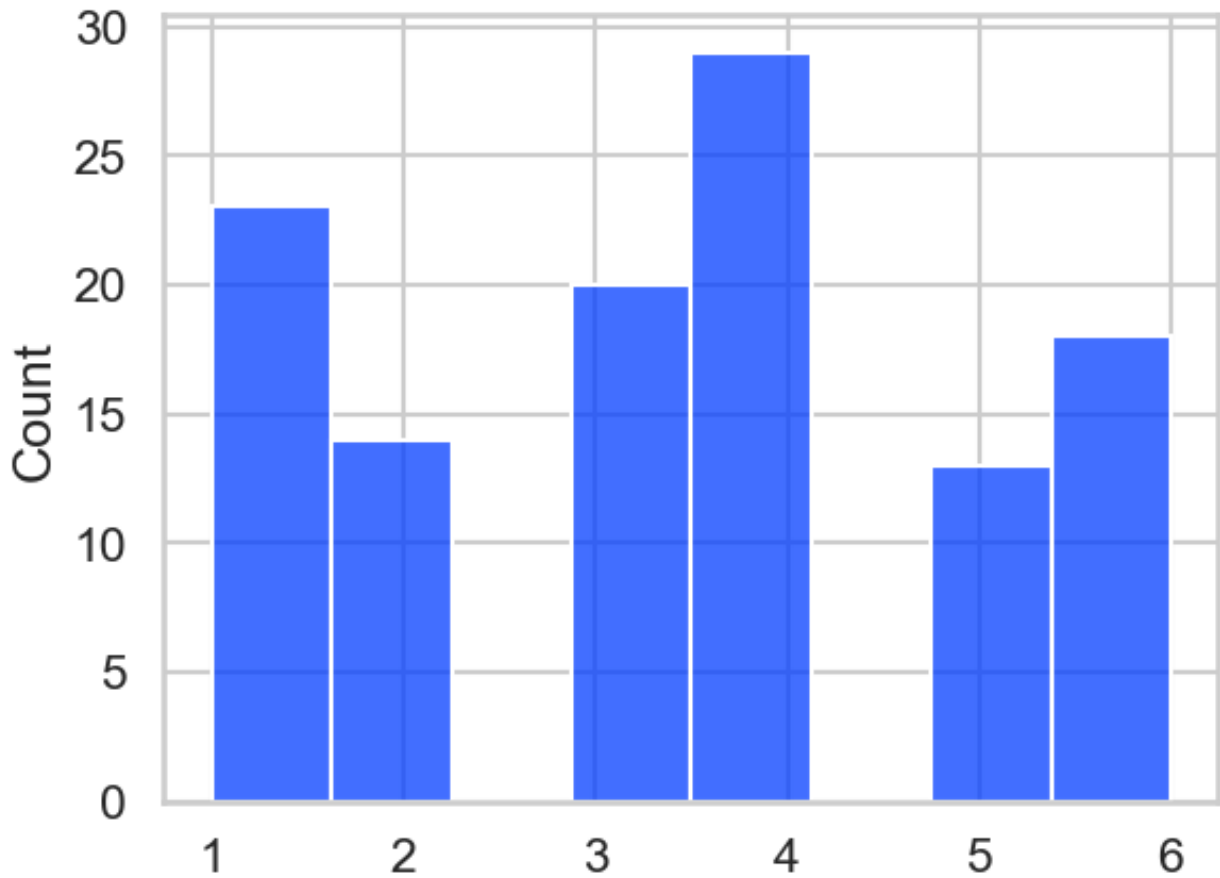


Figure 1: Distribution of available survey waves per country in the importance-of-religion table.

1.3 Outliers in survey uncertainty variables

The variables `no_answer` and `dont_know` are not substantive measures of religiousness. They are useful quality indicators because unusually high values may signal uncertainty, nonresponse, or comparability issues in a particular country-year.

The `no_answer` variable has a low median, but several outliers appear. The highest values in the notebook were Latvia (17.28%), Japan (11.31%), and Tanzania (8.37%). The time-series plots show that these values are not general trends across all years; rather, they are localized spikes in specific country-year observations.

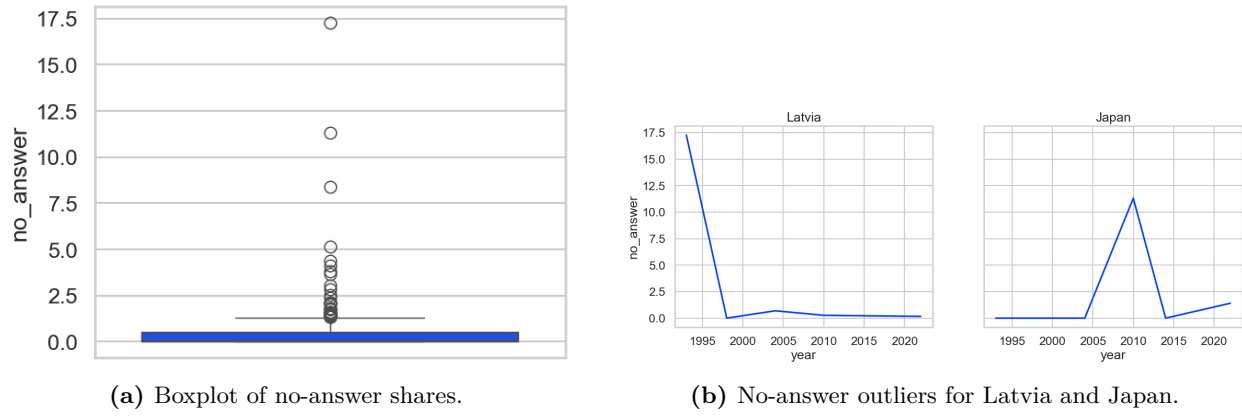


Figure 2: Outlier inspection for the no-answer variable.

The `dont_know` variable also has a low median but contains more visible outliers. The highest values reported in the notebook were China in 2010 (24.25%), Japan in 1993 (14.54%), Japan in 2014 (13.55%), Japan in 2004 (12.41%), and China in 1998 (11.07%). These cases were visualized separately because they could affect any index that uses survey responses without checking uncertainty categories.

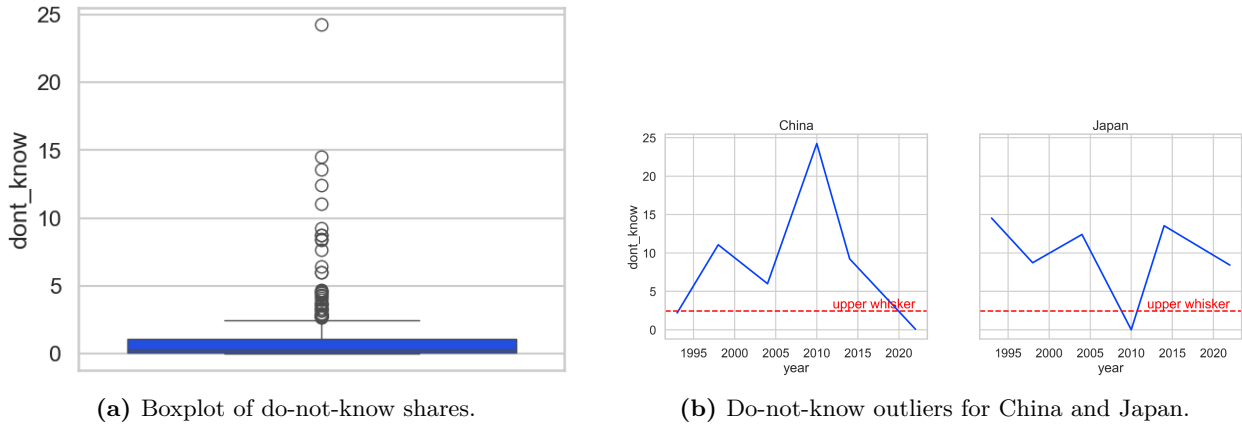


Figure 3: Outlier inspection for the do-not-know variable.

Conclusion. The survey table can be used for a religiousness index, but response uncertainty must be kept in mind. The high outliers in `no_answer` and `dont_know` do not invalidate the dataset, but they show why the analysis should avoid overinterpreting individual country-year observations.

1.4 Auxiliary socioeconomic data

The World Bank table is used later to connect religiousness with income group, GDP per capita and fertility. The missing-value check showed that most variables have limited missingness. GDP2000 has the largest missingness among the listed variables, while the other indicators are mostly below 4%. Since these variables are auxiliary rather than the main focus, rows with missing values are removed only when a specific comparison requires complete data.

Conclusion. The auxiliary socioeconomic data are sufficient for exploratory comparisons, but the report treats them as supporting variables rather than as a complete model of religion and society.

2 Global Religious Structure

2.1 Dominant religion by country

For each country and year, the dominant religious group was defined as the religion with the largest number of people in the seven broad categories. This is a simple maximum-count rule:

$$\text{main religion}_{i,t} = \arg \max_r N_{i,t,r},$$

where $N_{i,t,r}$ is the number of people in country i , year t , and religious group r .

The world maps show that dominant religious geography is highly structured. Christianity is dominant across much of Europe, the Americas, Sub-Saharan Africa, and Oceania. Islam is dominant across North Africa, the Middle East, and large parts of Central Asia. Hindu dominance is concentrated mainly in India, while Buddhist dominance appears in several countries in East and Southeast Asia. Countries where no religion is the largest category are much rarer, but they are important for understanding secularization patterns.

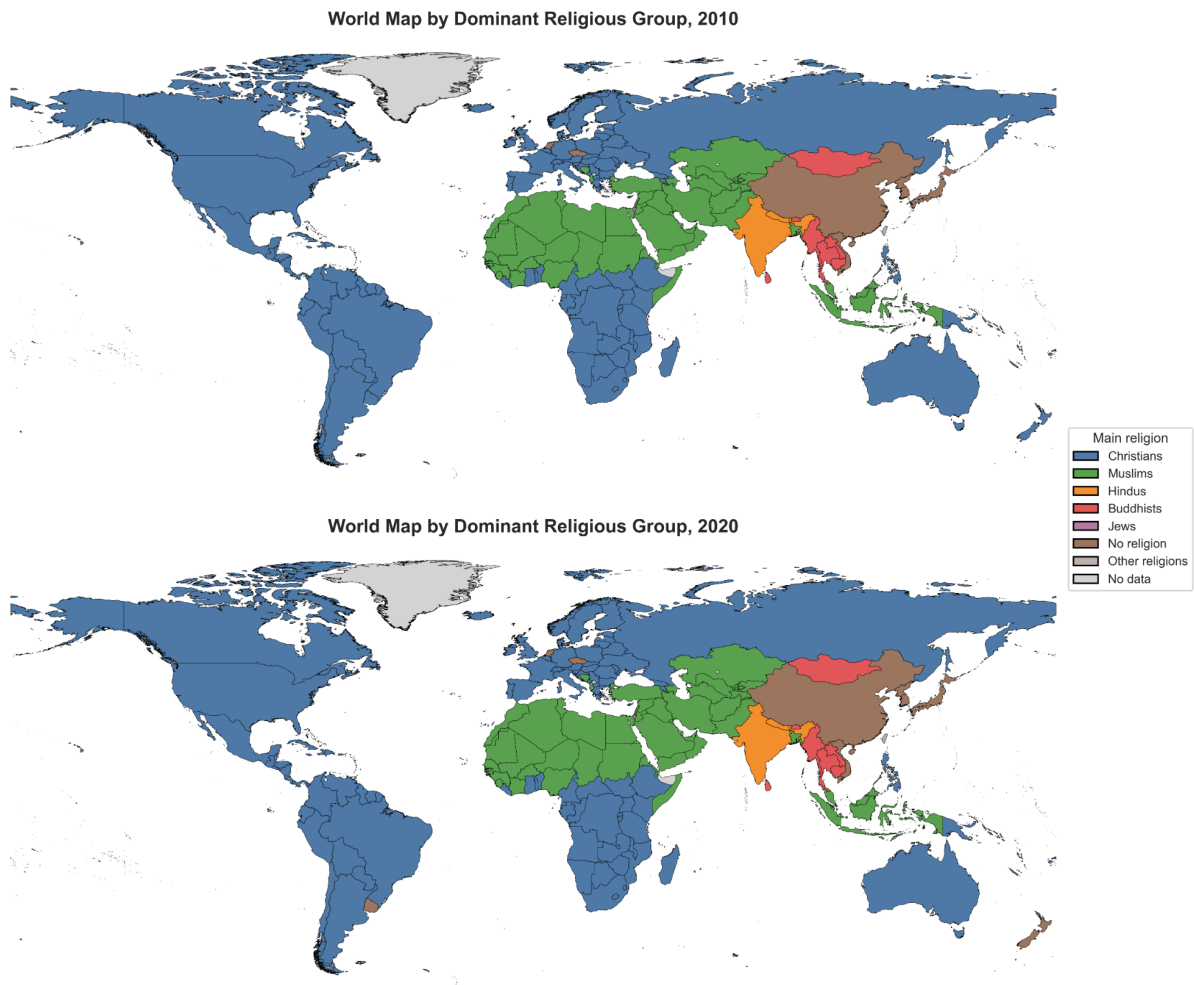


Figure 4: Dominant religious group by country in 2010 and 2020.

The comparison between 2010 and 2020 shows that the dominant religious group is stable in most countries. In the notebook, only two country-level changes were found: New Zealand and Uruguay changed from Christians to No religion as the largest category.

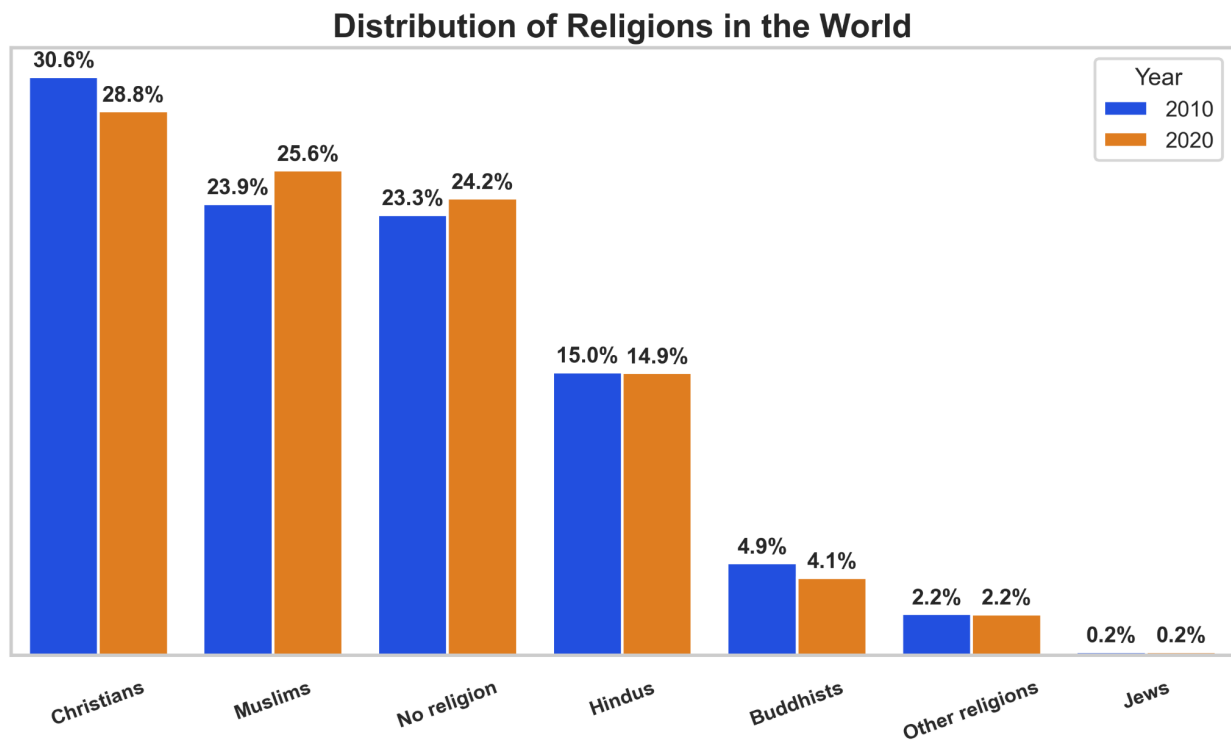
Table 6: Countries where the dominant category changed between 2010 and 2020.

Country	Dominant group in 2010	Dominant group in 2020
New Zealand	Christians	No religion
Uruguay	Christians	No religion

Conclusion. Dominant religion is geographically stable over the decade. The most visible country-level changes are not shifts from one organized religion to another, but shifts from Christianity to the No religion category in New Zealand and Uruguay.

2.2 Global distribution of religions

The world-level rows were used to compare global shares in 2010 and 2020. The bar plot and pie charts present the same information from two perspectives: the bar plot makes small changes easier to compare, while the pie charts show the overall structure of the world distribution.

**Figure 5:** Global distribution of religious groups in 2010 and 2020, shown as shares of world population.

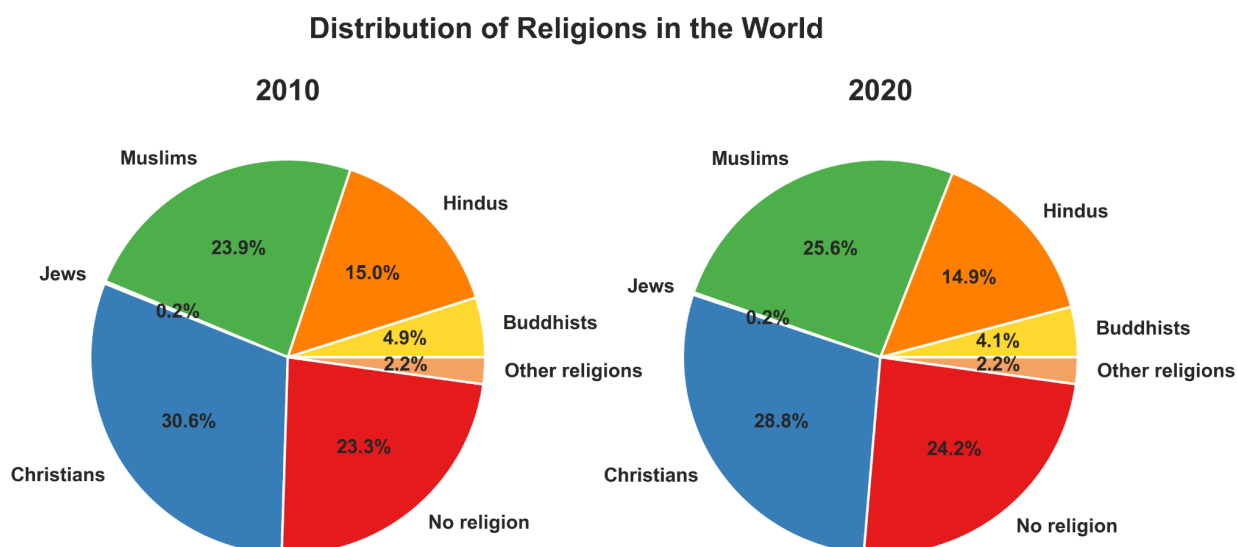


Figure 6: Pie-chart view of global religious composition in 2010 and 2020.

The line plot highlights the change in share for each religious group. Christians decreased from 30.6% to 28.8%, a change of about -1.8 percentage points. Muslims increased from 23.9% to 25.6%, about $+1.8$ percentage points. People with no religion increased from 23.3% to 24.2%, about $+0.9$ percentage points. Buddhists decreased by about -0.8 percentage points, while Hindus, Jews, and other religions remained almost unchanged in global share.

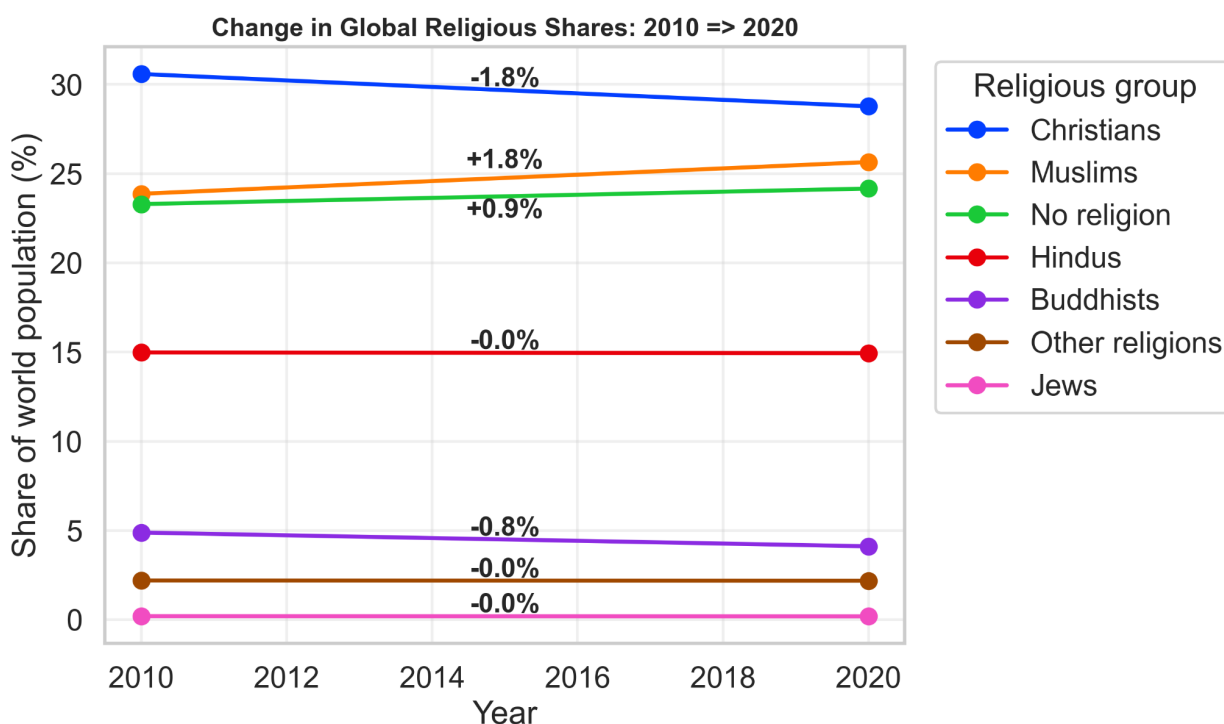


Figure 7: Change in global religious shares between 2010 and 2020.

Table 7: Change in global religious shares, 2010–2020.

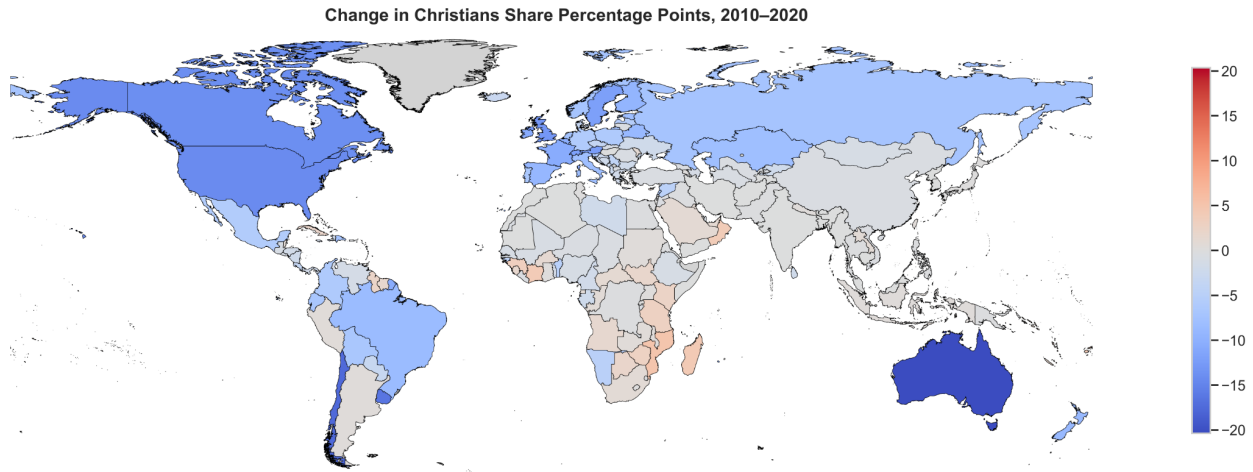
Religious group	2010 share	2020 share	Change
Christians	30.58%	28.77%	−1.81 pp
Muslims	23.87%	25.65%	+1.78 pp
No religion	23.29%	24.16%	+0.87 pp
Hindus	14.98%	14.94%	−0.04 pp
Buddhists	4.88%	4.11%	−0.77 pp
Other religions	2.20%	2.18%	−0.01 pp
Jews	0.20%	0.19%	−0.01 pp

Conclusion. The global religious distribution changed moderately rather than dramatically. The largest share increase belongs to Muslims, while the largest share decrease belongs to Christians. The No religion category also increased, which connects the global composition section with the later analysis of religiousness and secularization.

2.3 Country-level share changes

The global changes are not distributed evenly across countries. To study geographic variation, the project maps country-level changes in religious shares between 2010 and 2020. The values are measured in percentage points, not in absolute population counts.

The Christian share map shows a decrease across many countries in the Americas, Europe, Australia, and parts of Asia. Some countries in Africa and other regions show local increases. This pattern means that the global decline in Christian share does not imply a uniform decrease everywhere.

**Figure 8:** Country-level change in Christian share, 2010–2020.

The Muslim share map shows increases in several countries of Central Asia, parts of Europe, and parts of Africa, while some countries show decreases. The strongest changes are localized rather than global.

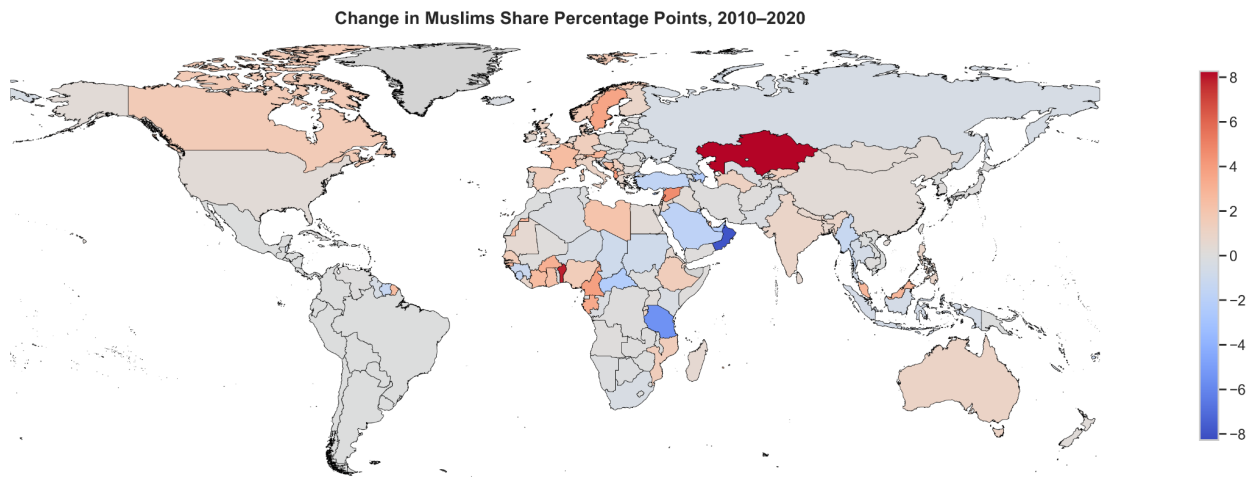


Figure 9: Country-level change in Muslim share, 2010–2020.

The No religion map shows clear increases in several high-income or historically secularizing regions, including North America, parts of Europe, Chile, Australia, and some East Asian countries. Decreases also appear in some countries, so the secularization pattern is not universal.

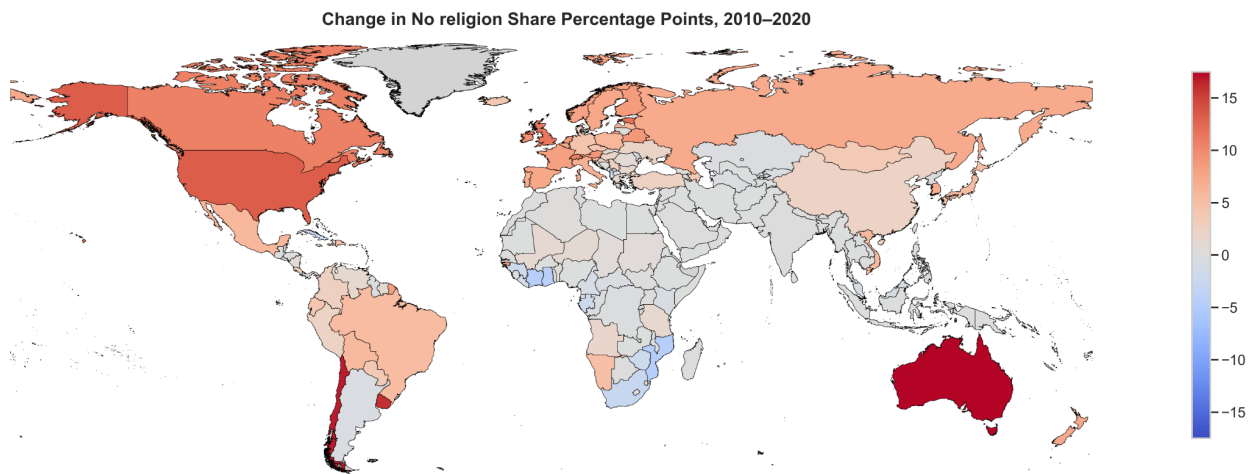


Figure 10: Country-level change in the No religion share, 2010–2020.

Conclusion. Country-level maps show that religious change is spatially heterogeneous. A global increase or decrease in a religious group's share may hide very different local trajectories. Therefore, both global totals and country maps are necessary for a balanced interpretation.

2.4 Religious diversity

2.4.1 Diversity index

Religious diversity was measured with Shannon entropy. For each country-year, the share of each religious group was computed as

$$p_{i,t,r} = \frac{N_{i,t,r}}{\sum_r N_{i,t,r}}.$$

The diversity index is then

$$H_{i,t} = - \sum_r p_{i,t,r} \ln(p_{i,t,r}).$$

The index is measured in nats because the natural logarithm is used. If all seven groups were equally represented, the theoretical maximum would be $\ln(7) \approx 1.95$. Countries dominated almost completely by one group have entropy close to 0. In this dataset, the observed range is approximately from 0.02 for very homogeneous countries to about 1.68 for Singapore.

Conclusion. Entropy is useful because it captures the whole distribution of religious groups rather than only the largest group. However, it is still based on broad categories, so it measures diversity between the dataset's categories, not every possible religious identity.

2.4.2 Diversity maps

The diversity maps show where religious composition is more mixed. Countries with higher entropy usually have several religious categories with substantial shares, while low-entropy countries are dominated by one group.

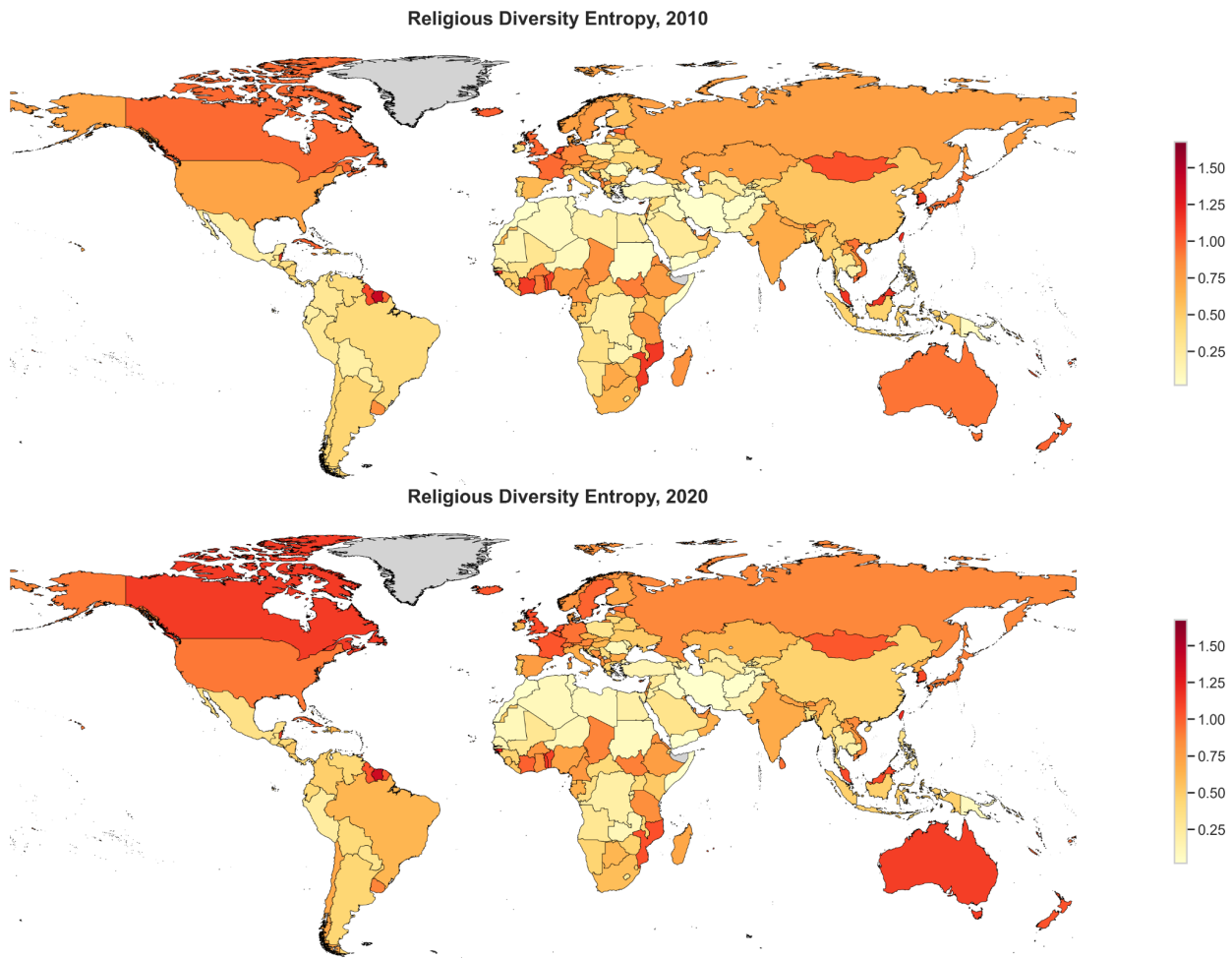


Figure 11: Religious diversity entropy by country in 2010 and 2020.

Several patterns are visible. Very low entropy appears in countries where one religious group is almost universal, such as Afghanistan, Yemen, and Iran. High entropy appears in countries with mixed religious composition, including Singapore and several countries with historically plural religious landscapes. In many countries, the map also reflects the rise of the No religion category, which increases diversity when it becomes a substantial minority.

Conclusion. Religious diversity is not the same as the identity of the dominant religion. Two countries may both be Christian-majority or Muslim-majority, but their internal diversity can be very different.

2.4.3 Change in diversity

The change map compares entropy in 2020 with entropy in 2010. Positive values mean that the religious distribution became more balanced across categories; negative values mean that one or a few categories became more dominant.

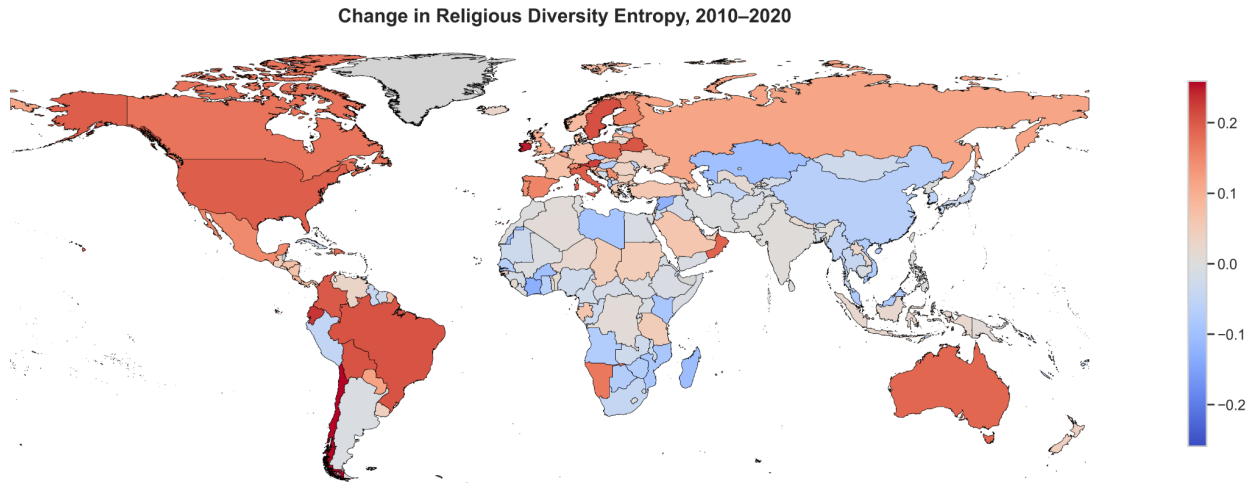


Figure 12: Change in religious diversity entropy between 2010 and 2020.

The countries with the largest increases in diversity in the notebook include Chile, Ireland, Ecuador, Austria, Sweden, Brazil, Bolivia, Belarus, Colombia, and Italy. The countries with the largest decreases include Mayotte, Maldives, Cote d'Ivoire, Syria, Western Sahara, Seychelles, Madagascar, Curacao, Kazakhstan, and Burkina Faso.

Table 8: Largest positive and negative changes in religious diversity entropy.

Largest increases		Largest decreases	
Country	Change	Country	Change
Chile	0.259	Mayotte	-0.171
Ireland	0.248	Maldives	-0.135
Ecuador	0.232	Cote d'Ivoire	-0.131
Austria	0.223	Syria	-0.125
Sweden	0.210	Western Sahara	-0.113
Brazil	0.205	Seychelles	-0.108
Bolivia	0.205	Madagascar	-0.107
Belarus	0.203	Curacao	-0.107
Colombia	0.199	Kazakhstan	-0.100
Italy	0.196	Burkina Faso	-0.099

Conclusion. Diversity increased in many countries where the dominant religion lost share or where the No religion category became more visible. Diversity decreased where one group became more dominant. These are descriptive patterns; further work would be needed to explain the social causes behind them.

2.4.4 Diversity vs. dominance

The final diversity analysis compares entropy with the share of the dominant religion. This plot is important because it shows the relationship between two related but not identical concepts: diversity and dominance. The x-axis is entropy; the y-axis is the share of the largest religious group. Orange circles mark countries with population above 30 million.

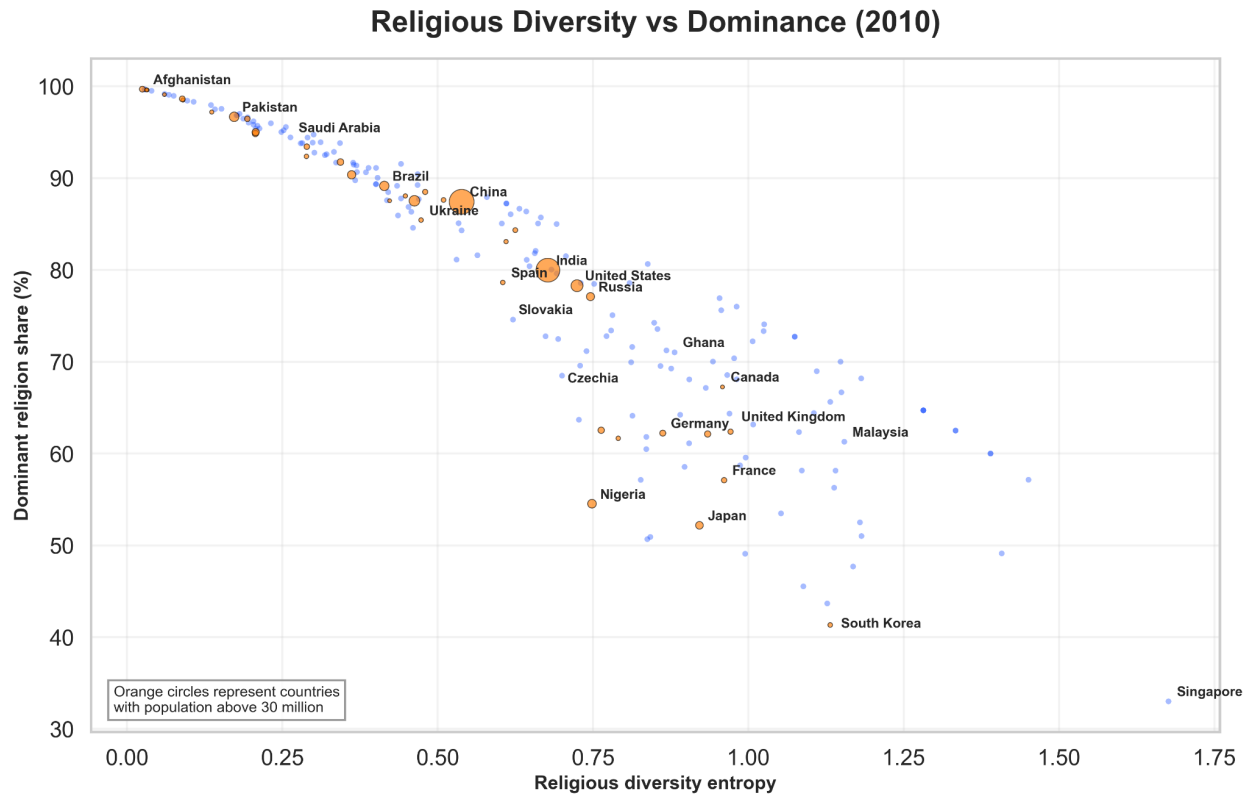


Figure 13: Religious diversity entropy versus dominant religion share in 2010.

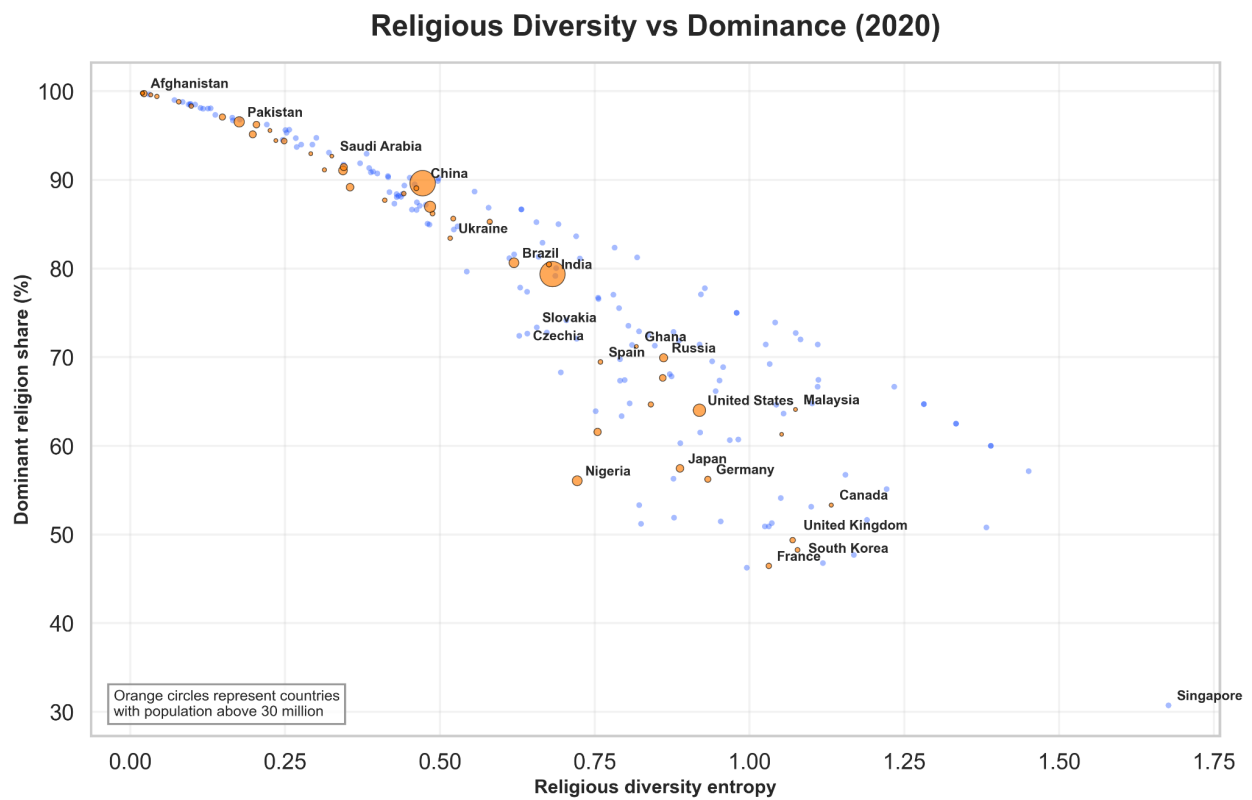


Figure 14: Religious diversity entropy versus dominant religion share in 2020.

The expected negative relationship is clearly visible. Countries with a dominant share close to 100% have very low entropy. Afghanistan, Pakistan, and Saudi Arabia are examples of low diversity

and high dominance. Singapore is the opposite extreme: it has very high entropy and a low dominant-group share. Countries such as France, the United Kingdom, Canada, Germany, Japan, and South Korea occupy the middle or high-diversity area, reflecting more balanced distributions across categories.

Conclusion. Entropy and dominant share tell complementary stories. Dominant share identifies the largest group, while entropy measures how strongly the rest of the distribution matters. Using both metrics gives a more complete picture of religious structure.

3 Importance of Religion

3.1 Religiousness Index

The importance-of-religion table contains several response categories, so a single index was created to summarize the level of religiousness in a country-year. Two weighting schemes were used.

Table 9: Weights used to construct the religiousness indices.

Scheme	Very	Rather	Not very	Not at all
Linear (WRL)	1.00	0.66	0.33	0.00
Exponential (WRE)	1.00	0.50	0.10	0.00

The formulas are

$$WRL = \frac{1.00x_{very} + 0.66x_{rather} + 0.33x_{not\ very} + 0.00x_{not\ at\ all}}{x_{very} + x_{rather} + x_{not\ very} + x_{not\ at\ all}},$$

$$WRE = \frac{1.00x_{very} + 0.50x_{rather} + 0.10x_{not\ very} + 0.00x_{not\ at\ all}}{x_{very} + x_{rather} + x_{not\ very} + x_{not\ at\ all}}.$$

The linear score treats the response categories as approximately evenly spaced. The exponential score is stricter: it gives less weight to moderate responses and emphasizes the difference between strong religious commitment and weaker forms of importance.

Table 10: Example of computed religiousness scores from the notebook output.

Country	Code	Year	WRL	WRE
Albania	ALB	1998	0.577	0.454
Albania	ALB	2004	0.575	0.465
Albania	ALB	2010	0.498	0.374
Albania	ALB	2022	0.619	0.505
Algeria	DZA	2004	0.968	0.954
Algeria	DZA	2014	0.960	0.947
Andorra	AND	2010	0.323	0.217
Andorra	AND	2022	0.342	0.234
Argentina	ARG	1993	0.632	0.542
Argentina	ARG	1998	0.630	0.531

Conclusion. A composite religiousness index is necessary because no single survey response fully describes religious importance. Comparing the linear and exponential versions makes the analysis more robust to the choice of weighting scheme.

3.2 Global religiousness trend over years

Country averages can be misleading because small and large countries would receive equal weight. Therefore, the notebook used a population-adjusted weighted mean. For each survey year, the score was weighted by the population of countries included in that year:

$$\overline{W}_{Year} = \frac{\sum_{i=1}^n Score_i \cdot Population_i}{\sum_{i=1}^n Population_i}.$$

Historical population baselines were matched approximately to survey waves: surveys from 1993, 1998, and 2004 were weighted with the 2000 population; surveys from 2010 and 2014 with the 2010 population; and surveys from 2022 with the 2020 population.

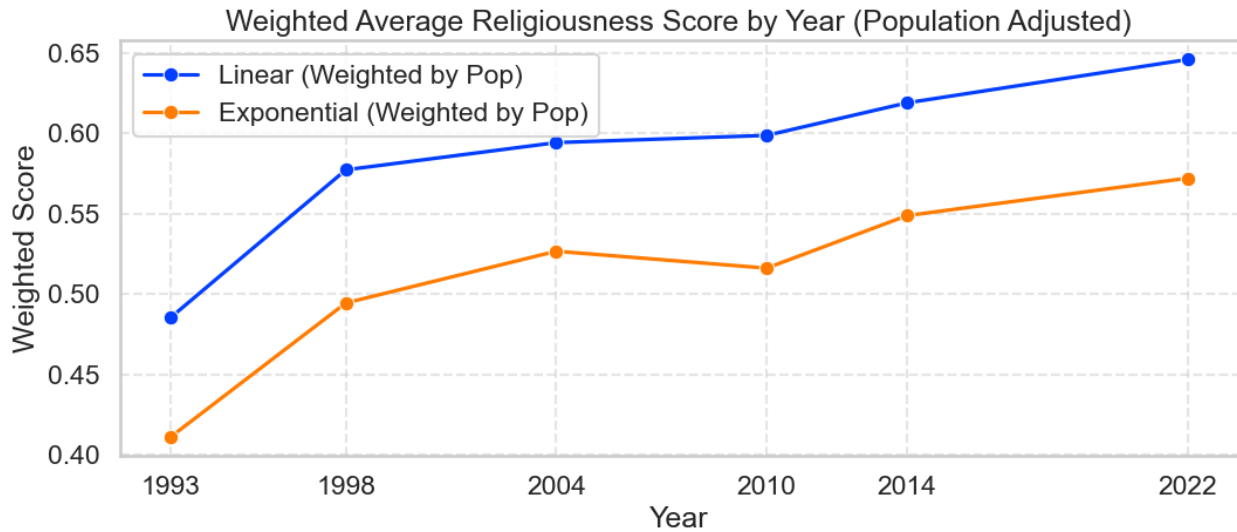


Figure 15: Population-adjusted weighted average religiousness score by year.

The plot shows an increasing weighted average score over the available survey years for both weighting schemes. The exponential index is consistently lower than the linear index, which is expected because it penalizes moderate responses more strongly. However, the increase should be interpreted cautiously because survey coverage changes over time and the index is based only on countries present in the survey waves.

Conclusion. The weighted global trend suggests that the sampled population became more religious on average according to the constructed index. This should be read as an exploratory result, not as proof that every region became more religious.

3.3 World map of religiousness

The religiousness index was also mapped geographically for the 2010 baseline. Countries with high scores are colored toward the upper end of the scale, while countries without valid survey data are shown in gray.

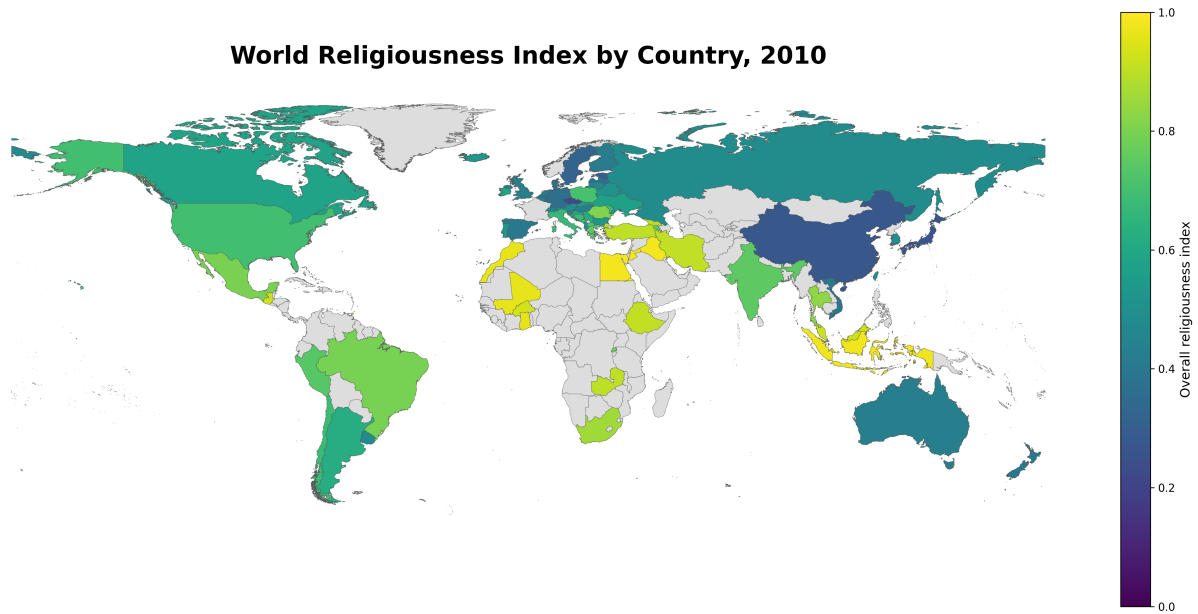


Figure 16: World religiousness index by country in 2010.

The map shows high religiousness values in much of Sub-Saharan Africa, parts of the Middle East, South Asia, and Southeast Asia. The Americas are generally in the middle-to-high range. Lower values are visible in China, Japan, parts of Europe, and some other high-income or historically secularized countries. At the same time, many countries are missing from the survey-based map, which limits global generalization.

Conclusion. The religiousness map complements the affiliation maps. A country can have a dominant religion, but this does not automatically mean that religion is equally important in daily life. Affiliation and personal importance are related but distinct dimensions.

4 Religion and Society

4.1 Religiousness by income group

After building the religiousness index, the next step was to compare it with socioeconomic indicators. The first comparison uses World Bank income groups: Low income, Lower middle income, Upper middle income, and High income.

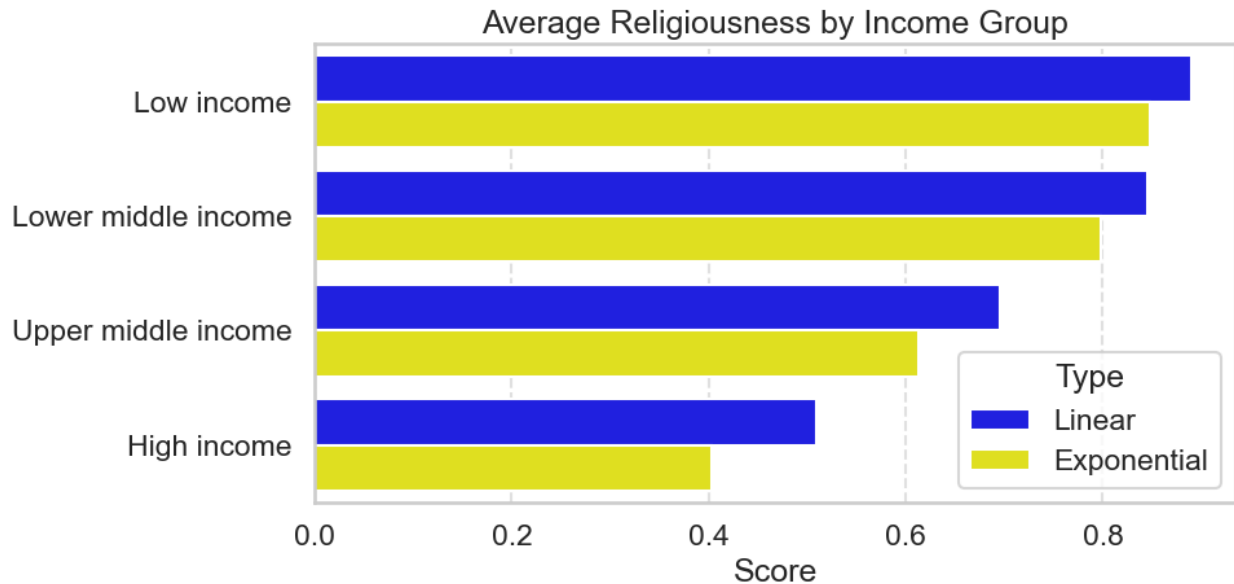


Figure 17: Average religiousness score by World Bank income group.

The bar plot shows a strong gradient. Low-income countries have the highest average religiousness, lower-middle-income countries are also high, upper-middle-income countries are lower, and high-income countries have the lowest average score. This pattern appears under both the linear and exponential weighting schemes.

Averages can hide the internal structure of answers inside each income group. Therefore, the next visualization compares the relative distribution of the four main response categories: “Very important”, “Rather important”, “Not very important”, and “Not at all important”.

Distribution of Religious Importance by Income Group

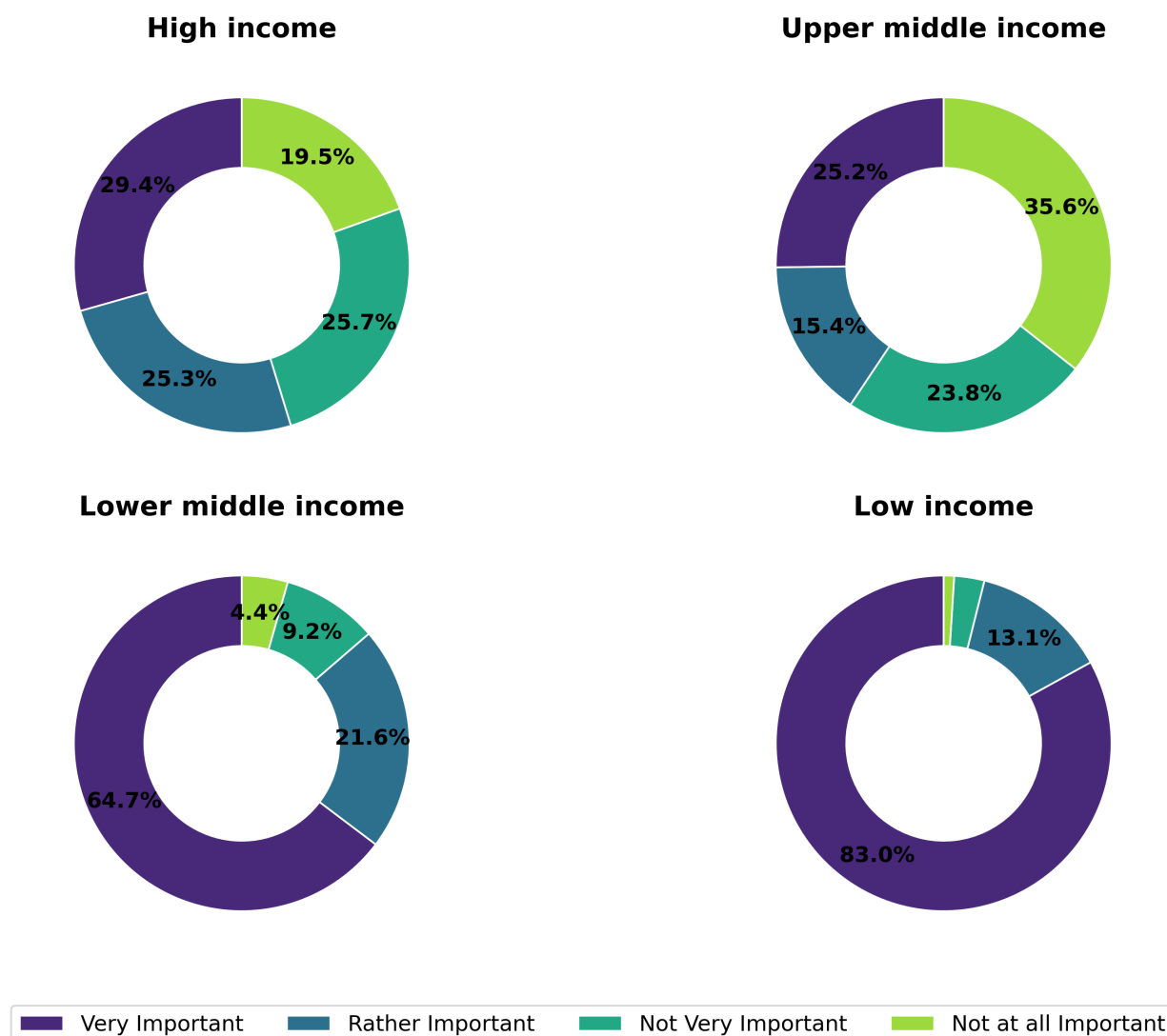


Figure 18: Distribution of religious importance categories by income group.

The pie charts show that low-income and lower-middle-income groups are dominated by the “Very important” category. In the low-income group, 83.0% of responses fall into this category and 13.1% are “Rather important”. In the lower-middle-income group, 64.7% are “Very important”. The upper-middle-income group is more divided, with “Not at all important” reaching 35.6%. The high-income group is much more balanced across response categories.

Conclusion. Income group is the clearest socioeconomic pattern in the project. The result does not prove that income causes secularization, but it shows a strong association between economic development level and lower average religiousness in the sampled data.

4.2 Trend analysis: religion and socioeconomic indicators

The final part of the notebook compares changes in religiousness between 2010 and 2022 with changes in GDP per capita and fertility. The goal is not to build a predictive model, but to count how often the two changes move in the same direction or in opposite directions. The classification

is based on the sign of

$$\Delta Indicator \times \Delta Religiousness.$$

A positive product is called a direct trend, and a negative product is called an inverse trend.

Table 11: Directional trend counts for socioeconomic indicators and religiousness changes.

Indicator	Index	Direct	Inverse	Total	Interpretation
GDP per capita	Linear	34	31	65	No clear directional pattern
GDP per capita	Exponential	31	34	65	No clear directional pattern
Fertility rate	Linear	20	43	64	Moderate inverse tendency
Fertility rate	Exponential	21	42	64	Moderate inverse tendency

GDP per capita has almost equal direct and inverse counts, so no meaningful directional conclusion can be drawn. Fertility shows more inverse cases than direct cases, but the sample size is limited and the method is only sign-based. Therefore, these results should be treated as exploratory tendencies.

Conclusion. The socioeconomic delta analysis is much weaker than the income-group comparison. Static income groups show a clear religiousness gradient, while short-term changes in GDP per capita and fertility are noisier and cannot support strong causal claims.

Final conclusion

This project analyzed global religious structure from several complementary perspectives. The first perspective was religious affiliation: the number and share of people belonging to major religious groups. The second perspective was dominance: which religious group is largest in each country. The third perspective was diversity: how balanced the religious composition is inside each country. The fourth perspective was personal religiousness, measured through survey answers about the importance of religion in life. Finally, religiousness was compared with income group and selected socioeconomic indicators.

The main findings are the following:

1. Christianity remained the largest global religious group in 2020, but its share decreased between 2010 and 2020.
2. Muslims had the largest positive change in global share among the analyzed groups.
3. The No religion category also increased globally and became the dominant category in New Zealand and Uruguay.
4. Dominant religion by country is geographically stable, but share maps reveal important local changes hidden behind this stability.
5. Religious diversity is highest where no single group dominates strongly. Singapore is the clearest high-diversity example in the dataset.
6. Diversity increased in several countries where the dominant group lost share or where the No religion category became more visible.
7. Survey-based religiousness is highest in low-income and lower-middle-income groups and lowest in high-income countries, although this should not be interpreted as causal proof.
8. Changes in GDP per capita and fertility between 2010 and 2022 show only weak or mixed directional relationships with changes in religiousness.

The project also has limitations. The religious categories are broad and do not distinguish denominations or internal traditions. The replacement of “< 10000” by 10000 is practical but approximate. The importance-of-religion survey does not cover all countries equally across all years. Finally, the socioeconomic comparisons are exploratory and do not control for historical, regional, political, or cultural factors.

There are many possible directions for further work. One important extension would be to analyze which dominant religious contexts tend to have lower or higher internal diversity. For example, one could compare average entropy among Christian-majority, Muslim-majority, Buddhist-majority, Hindu-majority, and No-religion-majority countries, while controlling for population size and region. Another direction would be to study which religions are usually associated with lower diversity inside countries and which ones more often coexist with large minority groups. This would need to be done carefully because low diversity can reflect geography, history, state borders, migration, or survey classification rather than religion itself.

Further research could also use more time points instead of only 2010 and 2020, include migration and age structure, distinguish absolute population growth from share growth, compare continents or income groups in more detail, and analyze whether increases in the No religion category are connected with education, urbanization, income, or generational change. A more advanced version of the project could also build regression or clustering models, but only after checking data coverage and uncertainty more rigorously.

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